



5.1 Approximating and Computing Area

Summation Notation

Summation notation is a standard notation for writing sums in compact form. The sum of numbers $a_m, \dots, a_n$ ($m \leq n$) is denoted

$$\sum_{j=m}^n a_j = a_m + a_{m+1} + \dots + a_n$$

5.1 Approximating and Computing Area

The Greek letter $\sum$ (capital sigma) stands for “sum,” and the notation $\sum_{j=m}^n$ tells us to start the summation at $j = m$ and end it at $j = n$. For example,

$$\sum_{j=1}^5 j^2 = 1^2 + 2^2 + 3^2 + 4^2 + 5^2 = 55$$

Ex: $\sum_{k=4}^6 (k^2 - 2k) = ?$

$$= \left(\frac{16}{2} - \frac{8}{1} \right) + \left(\frac{25}{2} - \frac{10}{1} \right) + \left(\frac{36}{2} - \frac{12}{1} \right)$$

$$= 8 + 15 + 24$$

$$= 47 \quad \checkmark$$

$$\sum_{j=1}^5 j^2 = 1^2 + 2^2 + 3^2 + 4^2 + 5^2 = 55$$

In this summation, the j th term is $a_j = j^2$. We refer to j^2 as the **general term**. The letter j is called the **summation index**. It is also referred to as a **dummy variable** because any other letter can be used instead. For example,

$$\sum_{k=4}^6 (k^2 - 2k) = \overbrace{(4^2 - 2(4))}^{k=4} + \overbrace{(5^2 - 2(5))}^{k=5} + \overbrace{(6^2 - 2(6))}^{k=6} = 47$$

$$\sum_{m=7}^9 1 = 1 + 1 + 1 = 3 \quad (\text{because } a_7 = a_8 = a_9 = 1)$$

Linearity of Summations

- $\sum_{j=m}^n (a_j + b_j) = \sum_{j=m}^n a_j + \sum_{j=m}^n b_j$
- $\sum_{j=m}^n C a_j = C \sum_{j=m}^n a_j \quad (C \text{ any constant})$
- $\sum_{j=1}^n C = nC \quad (C \text{ any constant and } n \geq 1)$

For example,

$$\sum_{j=3}^5 (j^2 + j) = (3^2 + 3) + (4^2 + 4) + (5^2 + 5) = 62$$

can also be expressed as

$$\sum_{j=3}^5 j^2 + \sum_{j=3}^5 j = (3^2 + 4^2 + 5^2) + (3 + 4 + 5) = 50 + 12 = 62$$

The linearity properties can be used to write a single summation as a linear combination of several summations. For example,

$$\begin{aligned}\sum_{k=0}^{100} (7k^2 - 4k + 9) &= \sum_{k=0}^{100} 7k^2 + \sum_{k=0}^{100} (-4k) + \sum_{k=0}^{100} 9 \\ &= 7 \sum_{k=0}^{100} k^2 - 4 \sum_{k=0}^{100} k + 9 \sum_{k=0}^{100} 1\end{aligned}$$

Power Sums

$$\sum_{j=1}^N j = 1 + 2 + \dots + N = \frac{N(N+1)}{2} = \frac{N^2}{2} + \frac{N}{2}$$

3

$$\sum_{j=1}^N j^2 = 1^2 + 2^2 + \dots + N^2 = \frac{N(N+1)(2N+1)}{6} = \frac{N^3}{3} + \frac{N^2}{2} + \frac{N}{6}$$

4

$$\sum_{j=1}^N j^3 = 1^3 + 2^3 + \dots + N^3 = \frac{N^2(N+1)^2}{4} = \frac{N^4}{4} + \frac{N^3}{2} + \frac{N^2}{4}$$

5

5.1 Approximating and Computing Area

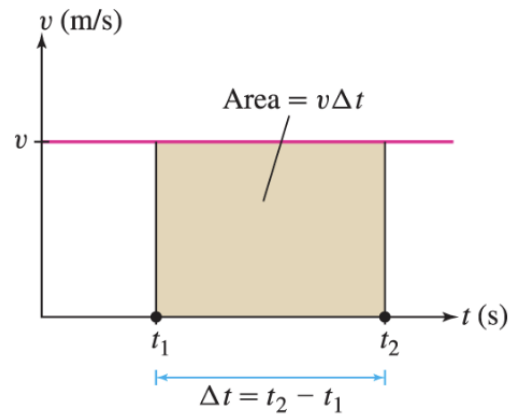
Why might we be interested in the area under a graph? Consider an object moving in a straight line with *constant positive velocity* v . The distance traveled over a time interval $[t_1, t_2]$ is equal to $v\Delta t$, where $\Delta t = (t_2 - t_1)$ is the time elapsed. This is the well-known formula

$$\text{distance traveled} = \underbrace{\text{velocity} \times \text{time elapsed}}_{v\Delta t}$$

Because v is constant, the graph of velocity is a horizontal line ([Figure 1](#)) and $v\Delta t$ is equal to the area of the rectangular region under the graph of velocity over $[t_1, t_2]$. So we can write [Eq.\(1\)](#) as

$$\text{distance traveled} = \text{area under the graph of velocity over } [t_1, t_2]$$

2



Rogawski et al., *Calculus: Early Transcendentals*, 4e, © 2019
W. H. Freeman and Company

FIGURE 1 The rectangle has area $v\Delta t$, which is equal to the distance traveled.

Our strategy when velocity changes continuously ([Figure 3](#)) is to *approximate* the area under the graph by a sum of areas of rectangles. We can continually improve the approximation by using thinner and thinner rectangles, and then take a limit to obtain an exact value of distance traveled. This idea leads to the concept of an integral.

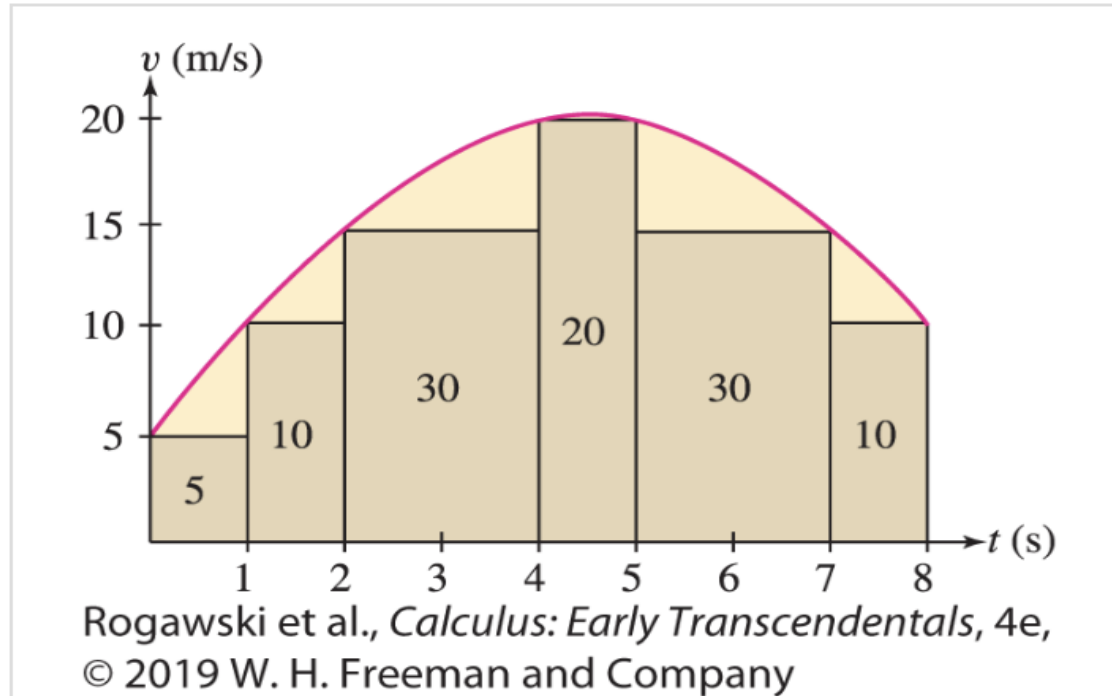


FIGURE 3 Distance traveled is equal to the area under the graph. It is *approximated* by the sum of the areas of the rectangles.

Approximating Area by Rectangles

Our goal is to compute the area under the graph of a function f . In this section, we assume that f is continuous and *positive*, so that the graph of f lies above the x -axis ([Figure 4](#)). The first step is to approximate the area using rectangles.

To begin, choose a Approximating Area by Rectangles $[a, b]$ into N subintervals of equal width, as in [Figure 4\(A\)](#). The full interval $[a, b]$ has width $b - a$, so each subinterval has width $\Delta x = (b - a) / N$. The right endpoints of the subintervals are

$$x_1 = a + \Delta x, x_2 = a + 2\Delta x, \dots, x_{N-1} = a + (N - 1) \Delta x, x_N = a +$$

Note that the last right endpoint is $x_N = b$ because

$a + N\Delta x = a + N((b - a) / N) = b$. The general term x_j can be expressed as $x_j = a + j\Delta x$, indicating that it is obtained by adding j intervals of width Δx to a .

Next, as in [Figure 4\(B\)](#), above each subinterval construct a rectangle whose height is the value of $f(x)$ at the *right endpoint* of the subinterval.

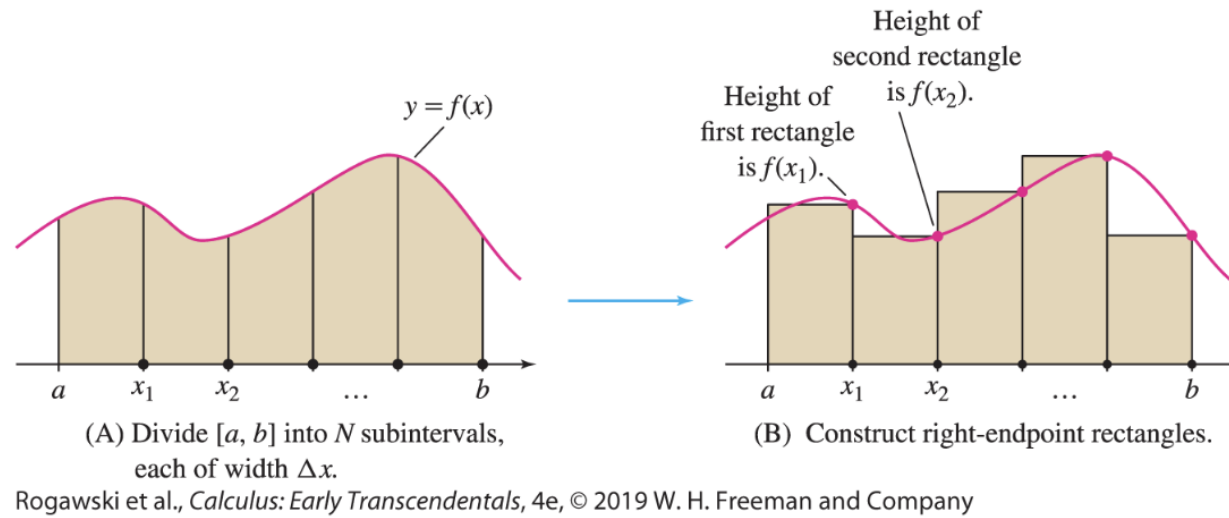
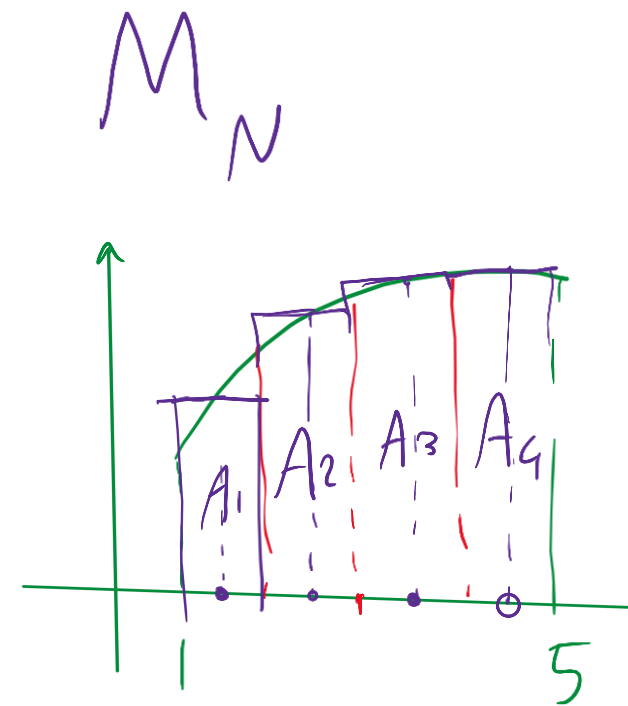
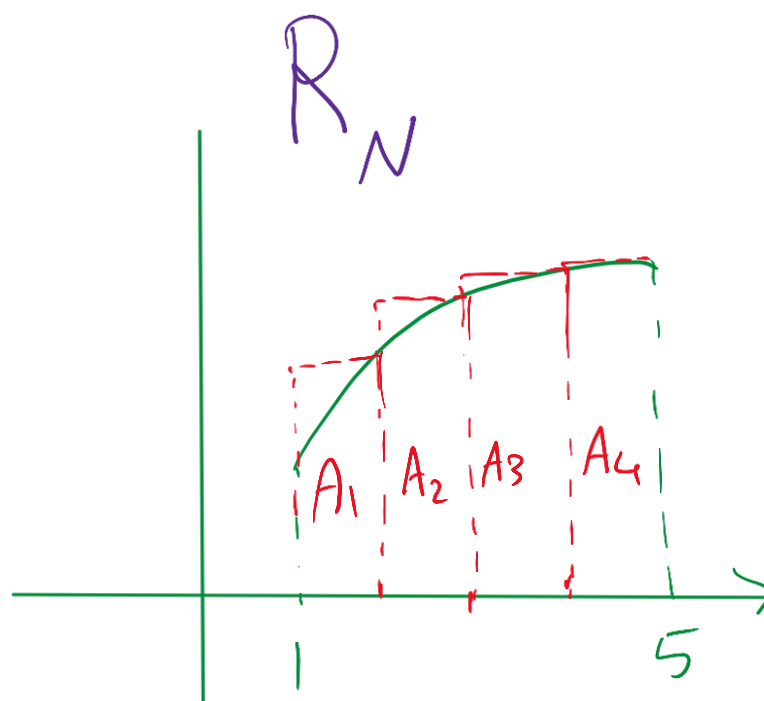
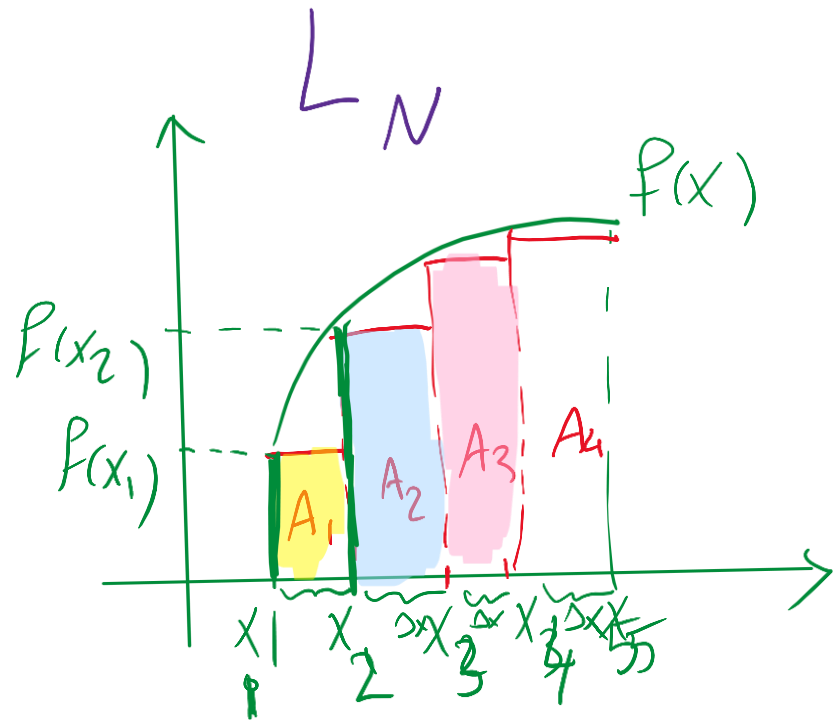


FIGURE 4

Recall the two-step procedure for finding the slope of the tangent line (the derivative): First approximate the slope using secant lines and then compute the limit of these approximations. In integral calculus, there are also two steps:

- *First, approximate the area under the graph using rectangles.*
- *Then compute the exact area (the integral) as the limit of these approximations.*



$$A \approx A_1 + A_2 + A_3 + A_4$$

$$A \approx A_1 + A_2 + A_3 + A_4$$

$$M = A_1 + A_2 + A_3 + A_4$$

R

$$\Delta x \cdot f(x_1) + \Delta x \cdot f(x_2) + \Delta x \cdot f(x_4) + \dots + \Delta x \cdot f(x_n)$$

$$\Delta x (f(x_1) + f(x_2) + f(x_3) + \dots + f(x_n))$$

$$R_N = \Delta x \sum_{i=1}^n f(x_i)$$

The sum of the areas of these rectangles provides an *approximation* to the area under the graph. The first rectangle has base Δx and height $f(x_1)$, so its area is $f(x_1) \Delta x$. Similarly, the second rectangle has height $f(x_2)$ and area $f(x_2) \Delta x$, and so on. The sum of the areas of the rectangles is denoted R_N and is called the ***N*th right-endpoint approximation**:

$$R_N = f(x_1) \Delta x + f(x_2) \Delta x + \cdots + f(x_N) \Delta x$$

Factoring out Δx , we obtain the formula

$$R_N = \Delta x (f(x_1) + f(x_2) + \cdots + f(x_N))$$

To summarize:

a = left endpoint of interval $[a, b]$

b = right endpoint of interval $[a, b]$

N = number of subintervals in $[a, b]$

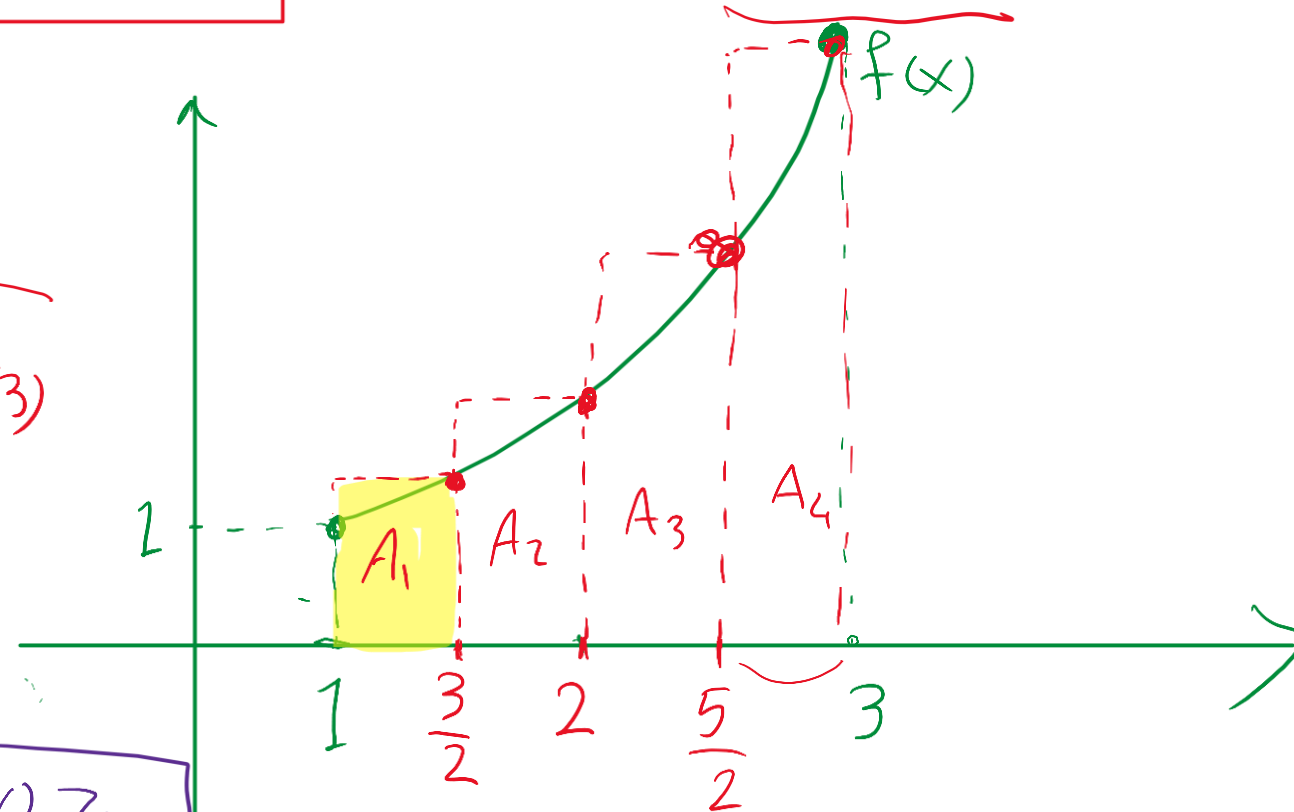
$$\Delta x = \frac{b - a}{N}$$

100% in Exam

EXAMPLE 1

Calculate R_4 and R_6 for $f(x) = x^2$ on the interval $[1, 3]$.

$$\Delta x = \frac{b-a}{N} = \frac{3-1}{4} = \frac{2}{4} = \frac{1}{2}$$
$$\underbrace{\frac{1}{2} \cdot f\left(\frac{3}{2}\right)}_{A_1} + \underbrace{\frac{1}{2} \cdot f(2)}_{A_2} + \underbrace{\frac{1}{2} \cdot f\left(\frac{5}{2}\right)}_{A_3} + \underbrace{\frac{1}{2} \cdot f(3)}_{A_4}$$
$$\frac{1}{2} \left(f\left(\frac{3}{2}\right) + f(2) + f\left(\frac{5}{2}\right) + f(3) \right)$$
$$\frac{1}{2} \left(\left(\frac{3}{2}\right)^2 + (2)^2 + \left(\frac{5}{2}\right)^2 + 3^2 \right) = \frac{43}{4} \approx 10.75$$



Solution

Step 1. Determine Δx and the right endpoints.

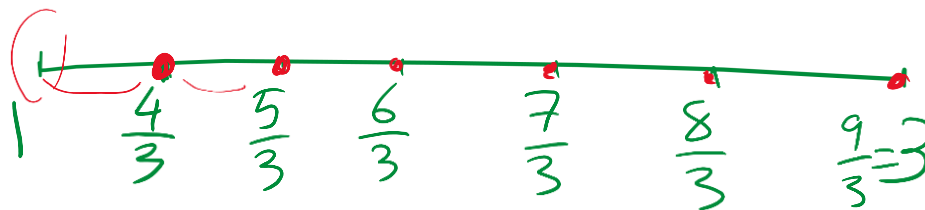
To calculate R_4 , divide $[1, 3]$ into four subintervals of width $\Delta x = \frac{3-1}{4} = \frac{1}{2}$. The right endpoints are the numbers $x_j = a + j\Delta x = 1 + j\left(\frac{1}{2}\right)$ for $j = 1, 2, 3, 4$. They are spaced at intervals of $\frac{1}{2}$ beginning at $\frac{3}{2}$, so, as we see in [Figure 5\(A\)](#), the right endpoints are $\frac{3}{2}, \frac{4}{2}, \frac{5}{2}, \frac{6}{2}$.

Step 2. Calculate Δx times the sum of function values.

R_4 is Δx times the sum of the function values at the right endpoints:

$$\begin{aligned} R_4 &= \frac{1}{2} \left(f\left(\frac{3}{2}\right) + f\left(\frac{4}{2}\right) + f\left(\frac{5}{2}\right) + f\left(\frac{6}{2}\right) \right) \\ &= \frac{1}{2} \left(\left(\frac{3}{2}\right)^2 + \left(\frac{4}{2}\right)^2 + \left(\frac{5}{2}\right)^2 + \left(\frac{6}{2}\right)^2 \right) = \frac{43}{4} = 10.75 \end{aligned}$$

$$1 + \frac{1}{3} = \frac{3}{3} + \frac{1}{3} = \frac{4}{3}$$



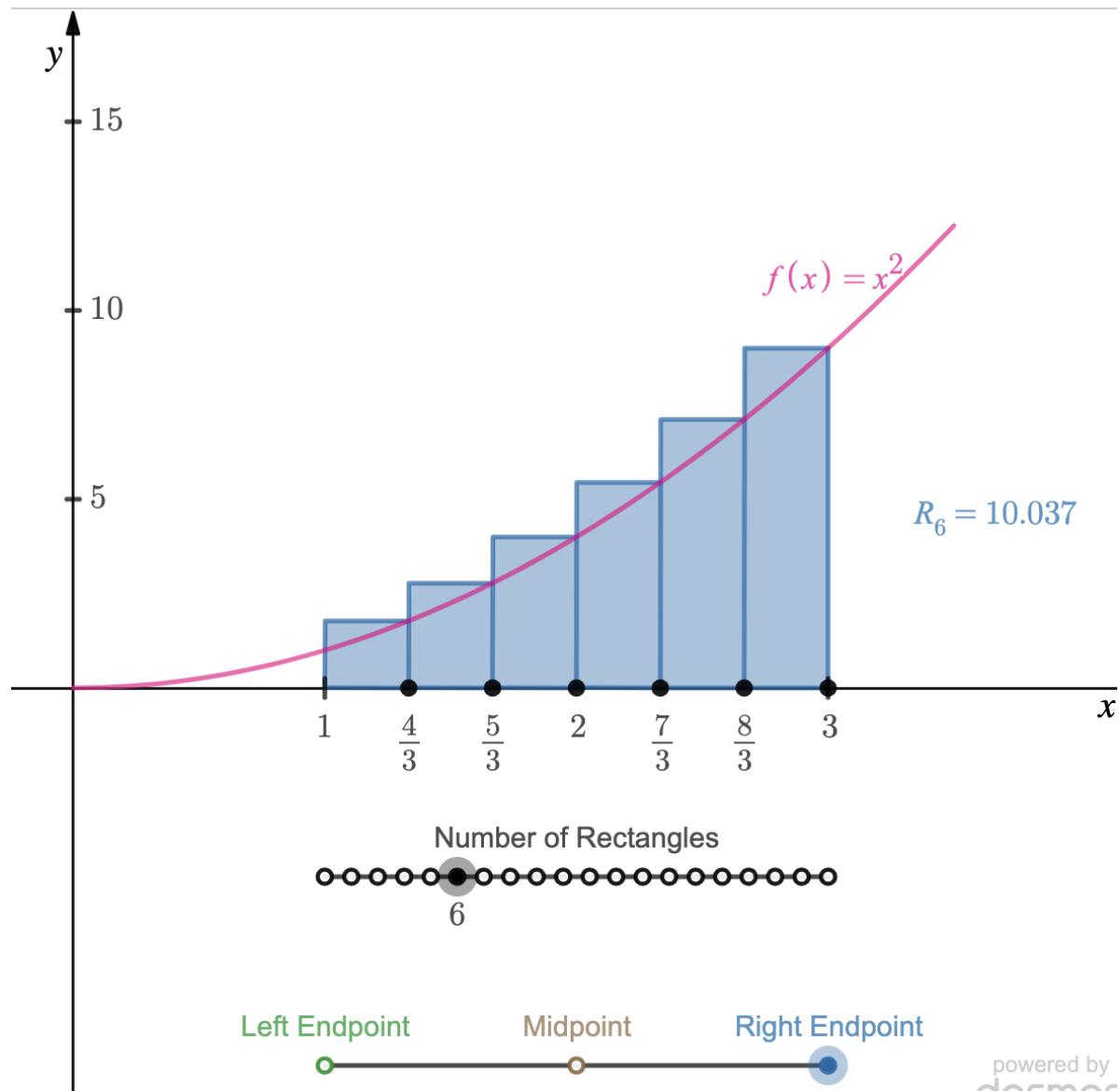
R_6 is similar: $\Delta x = \frac{3-1}{6} = \frac{1}{3}$, and the right endpoints are spaced at intervals of $\frac{1}{3}$ beginning at $\frac{4}{3}$ and ending at 3, as in [Figure 5\(B\)](#). Thus,

$$\begin{aligned} R_6 &= \frac{1}{3} \left(f\left(\frac{4}{3}\right) + f\left(\frac{5}{3}\right) + f\left(\frac{6}{3}\right) + f\left(\frac{7}{3}\right) + f\left(\frac{8}{3}\right) + f\left(\frac{9}{3}\right) \right) \\ &= \frac{1}{3} \left(\frac{16}{9} + \frac{25}{9} + \frac{36}{9} + \frac{49}{9} + \frac{64}{9} + \frac{81}{9} \right) = \frac{271}{27} \approx 10.037 \end{aligned}$$

$$R_4 \approx 10.75$$

$$R_6 = 10.037$$

$\approx$





The R_4 and R_6 values in the previous example are clearly overestimates of the area under $y = x^2$ between 1 and 3, although the approximation improves going from R_4 to R_6 . Later in the section, we show how to obtain a general expression for R_N . With that, we can then take the limit as $N \rightarrow \infty$ to obtain an exact value of $8 \frac{2}{3}$ as the area (see [Exercise 55](#)).



It is convenient to use summation notation when working with area approximations. For example, R_N is a sum with general term $f(x_j)$:

$$R_N = \Delta x [f(x_1) + f(x_2) + \cdots + f(x_N)]$$

The summation extends from $j = 1$ to $j = N$, so we can write R_N concisely as

R_4

R_6

$N \rightarrow \infty$

$$R_N = \Delta x \sum_{j=1}^N f(x_j)$$

We shall make use of two other rectangular approximations to area: the left-endpoint and the midpoint approximations. Divide $[a, b]$ into N subintervals as before. In the **left-endpoint approximation** L_N , the heights of the rectangles are the values of $f(x)$ at the left endpoints [[Figure 6\(A\)](#)]. These left endpoints are

$$x_0 = a, \quad x_1 = a + \Delta x, \quad x_2 = a + 2\Delta x, \quad \dots, \quad x_{N-1} = a + (N - 1) \Delta x$$

and the sum of the areas of the left-endpoint rectangles is

$$L_N = \Delta x (f(x_0) + f(x_1) + f(x_2) + \dots + f(x_{N-1}))$$

← **REMINDER**

$$\Delta x = \frac{b - a}{N}$$

Note that both R_N and L_N have general term $f(x_j)$, but the sum for L_N runs from $j = 0$ to $j = N - 1$ rather than from $j = 1$ to $j = N$:

$$L_N = \Delta x \sum_{j=0}^{N-1} f(x_j)$$

In the **midpoint approximation** M_N , the heights of the rectangles are the values of $f(x)$ at the midpoints of the subintervals rather than at the endpoints. As we see in [Figure 6\(B\)](#), the midpoints are

$$\frac{x_0 + x_1}{2}, \quad \frac{x_1 + x_2}{2}, \quad \dots, \quad \frac{x_{N-1} + x_N}{2}$$

The sum of the areas of the midpoint rectangles is

$$M_N = \Delta x \left(f\left(\frac{x_0 + x_1}{2}\right) + f\left(\frac{x_1 + x_2}{2}\right) + \dots + f\left(\frac{x_{N-1} + x_N}{2}\right) \right)$$

In summation notation,

$$M_N = \Delta x \sum_{j=0}^{N-1} f\left(\frac{x_j + x_{j+1}}{2}\right)$$

EXAMPLE 2

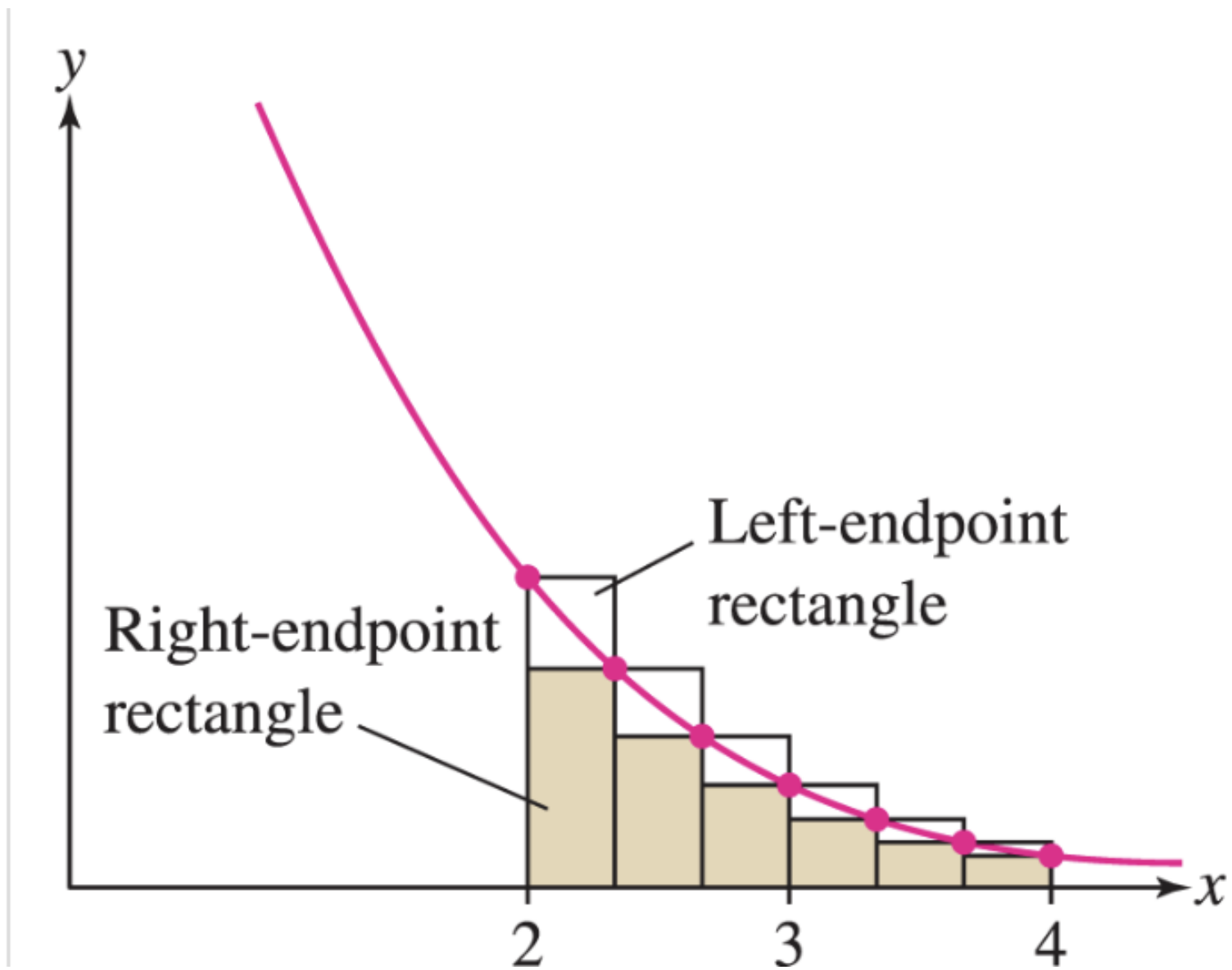
Calculate R_6 , L_6 , and M_6 for $f(x) = x^{-1}$ on $[2, 4]$.

Solution

In this case, $\Delta x = (b - a) / N = (4 - 2) / 6 = \frac{1}{3}$. For the six intervals, the right endpoints are $\frac{7}{3}, \frac{8}{3}, 3, \frac{10}{3}, \frac{11}{3}$, and 4, and the left endpoints are 2, $\frac{7}{3}, \frac{8}{3}, 3, \frac{10}{3}$ and $\frac{11}{3}$.

Therefore ([Figure 7](#)),

$$\begin{aligned} R_6 &= \frac{1}{3} \left(f\left(\frac{7}{3}\right) + f\left(\frac{8}{3}\right) + f(3) + f\left(\frac{10}{3}\right) + f\left(\frac{11}{3}\right) + f(4) \right) \\ &= \frac{1}{3} \left(\frac{3}{7} + \frac{3}{8} + \frac{1}{3} + \frac{3}{10} + \frac{3}{11} + \frac{1}{4} \right) \approx 0.653 \\ L_6 &= \frac{1}{3} \left(f(2) + f\left(\frac{7}{3}\right) + f\left(\frac{8}{3}\right) + f(3) + f\left(\frac{10}{3}\right) + f\left(\frac{11}{3}\right) \right) \\ &= \frac{1}{3} \left(\frac{1}{2} + \frac{3}{7} + \frac{3}{8} + \frac{1}{3} + \frac{3}{10} + \frac{3}{11} \right) \approx 0.737 \end{aligned}$$

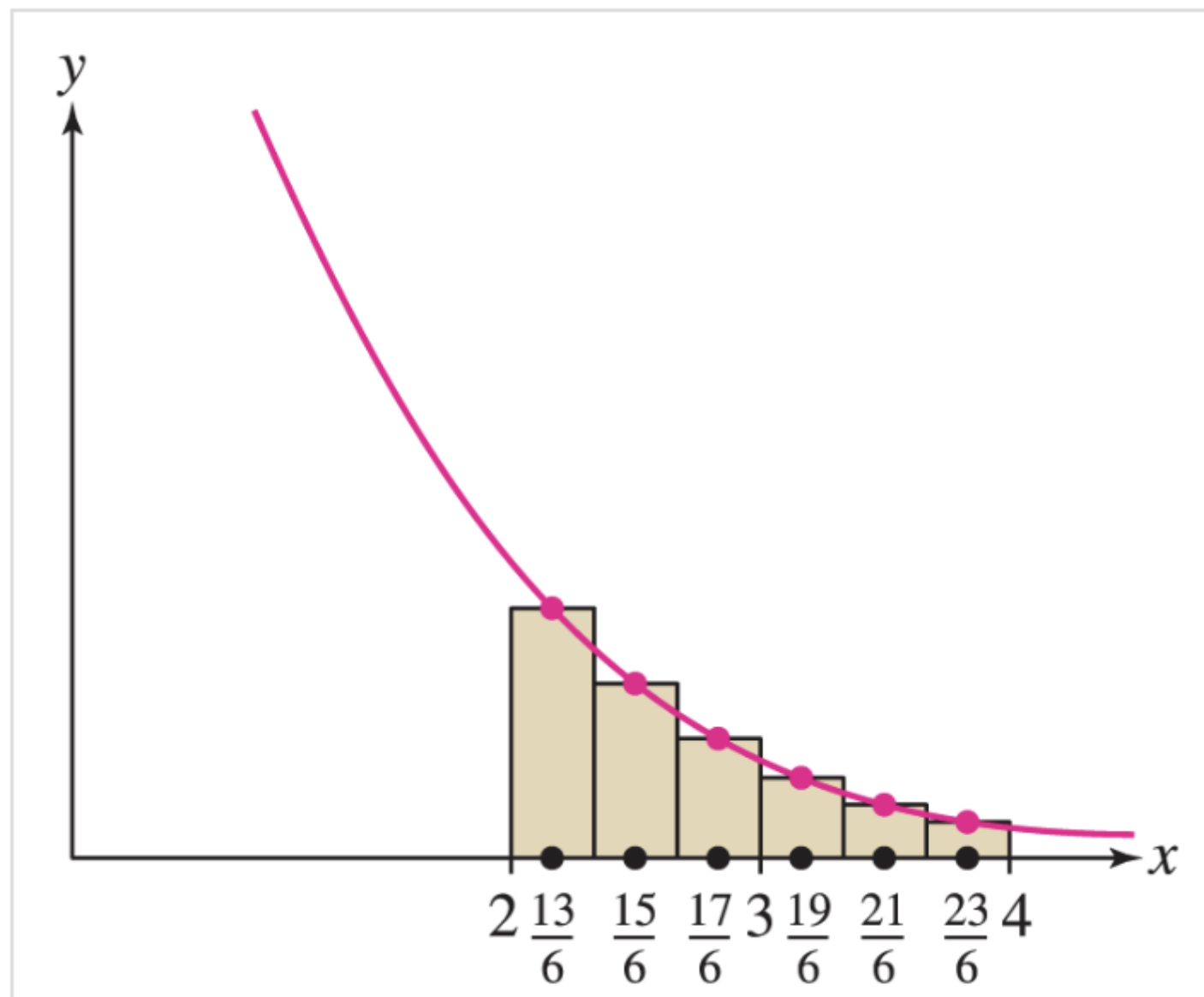


The general term in M_6 is

$$f\left(\frac{x_j + x_{j+1}}{2}\right)$$

In this case, the midpoints are $\frac{13}{6}, \frac{15}{6}, \frac{17}{6}, \frac{19}{6}, \frac{21}{6}$ and $\frac{23}{6}$. Summing from $j = 0$ to 5, we obtain ([Figure 8](#))

$$\begin{aligned} M_6 &= \frac{1}{3} \left(f\left(\frac{13}{6}\right) + f\left(\frac{15}{6}\right) + f\left(\frac{17}{6}\right) + f\left(\frac{19}{6}\right) + f\left(\frac{21}{6}\right) + f\left(\frac{23}{6}\right) \right) \\ &= \frac{1}{3} \left(\frac{6}{13} + \frac{6}{15} + \frac{6}{17} + \frac{6}{19} + \frac{6}{21} + \frac{6}{23} \right) \approx 0.692 \end{aligned}$$



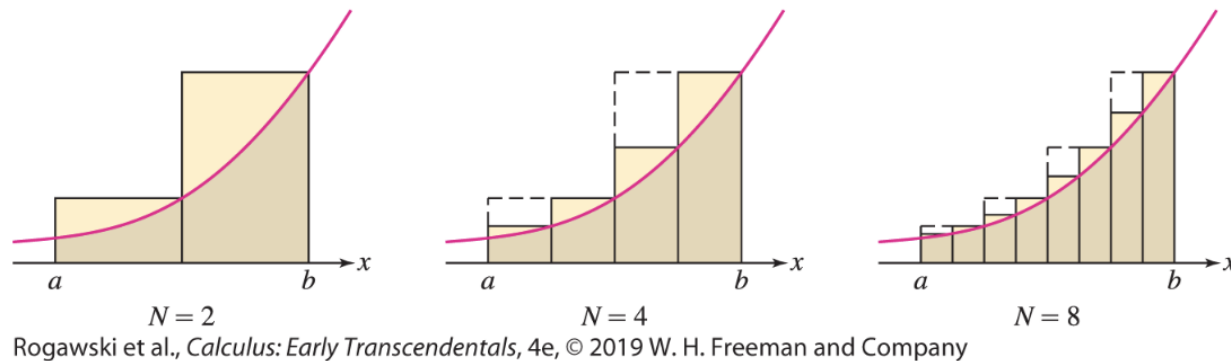


FIGURE 10 The error decreases as we use more rectangles.

THEOREM 1

If f is continuous on $[a, b]$, then the endpoint and midpoint approximations approach one and the same limit as $N \rightarrow \infty$. In other words, there is a value L such that

$$\lim_{N \rightarrow \infty} R_N = \lim_{N \rightarrow \infty} L_N = \lim_{N \rightarrow \infty} M_N = L$$

If $f(x) \geq 0$ on $[a, b]$, we define the area under the graph over $[a, b]$ to be L .

EXAMPLE 3

Find the area A under the graph of $f(x) = x$ over $[0, 4]$ in three ways:

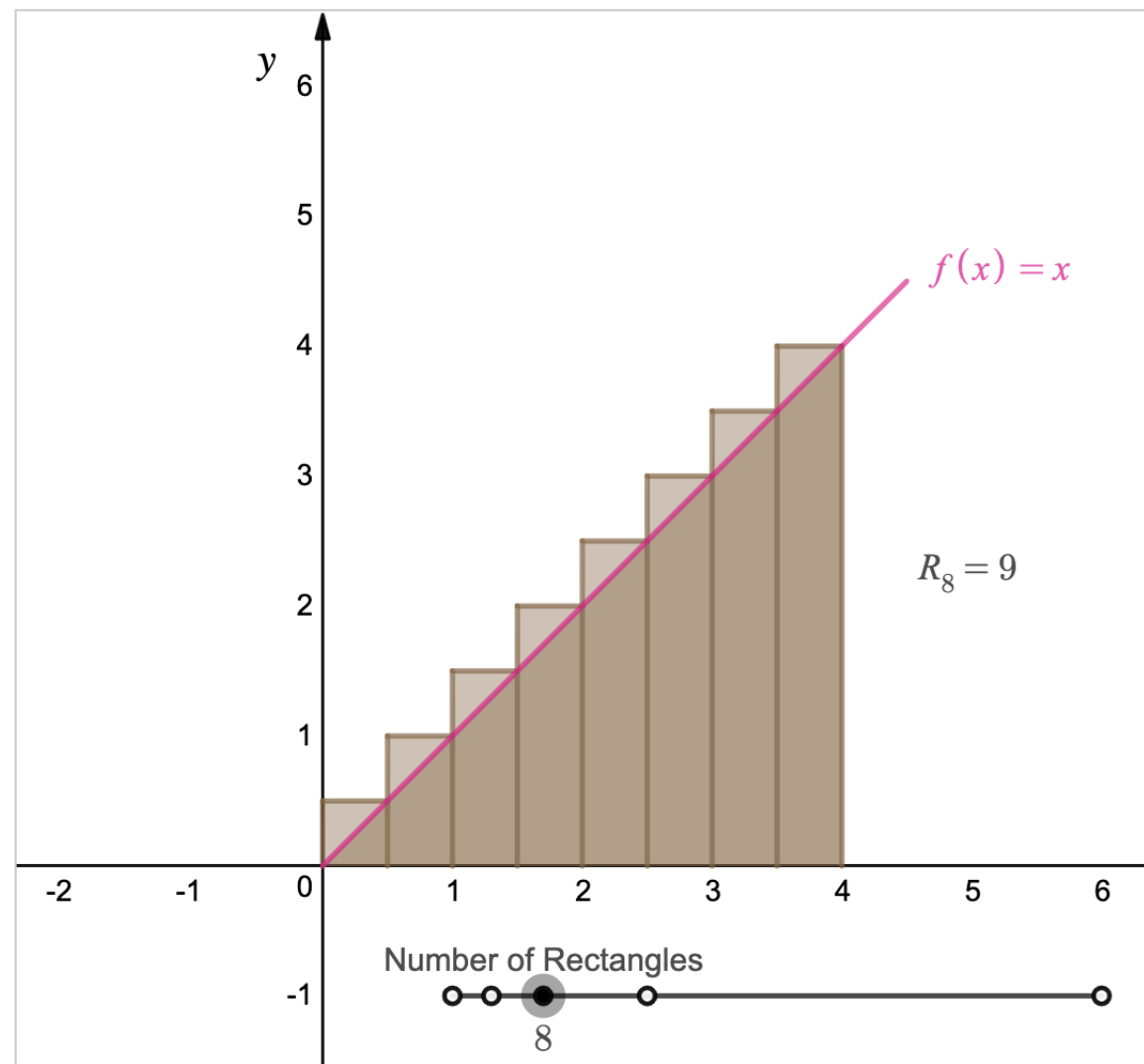
a. Using geometry

b. $\lim_{N \rightarrow \infty} R_N$

c. $\lim_{N \rightarrow \infty} L_N$

Solution

The region under the graph is a right triangle with base $b = 4$ and height $h = 4$ ([Figure 11](#)).



a. By geometry, $A = \frac{1}{2}bh = \left(\frac{1}{2}\right)(4)(4) = 8$.

b. We compute this area again as a limit. Since $\Delta x = (b - a) / N = 4/N$ and $f(x) = x$,

$$f(x_j) = f(a + j\Delta x) = f\left(0 + j\left(\frac{4}{N}\right)\right) = \frac{4j}{N}$$

$$R_N = \Delta x \sum_{j=1}^N f(x_j) = \frac{4}{N} \sum_{j=1}^N \frac{4j}{N} = \frac{16}{N^2} \sum_{j=1}^N j$$

In the last equality, we factored out $4/N$ from the sum. This is valid because $4/N$ is a constant that does not depend on j . Now use formula (3):

$$R_N = \frac{16}{N^2} \sum_{j=1}^N j = \frac{16}{N^2} \underbrace{\left(\frac{N(N+1)}{2}\right)}_{\text{Formula for power sum}} = \frac{8}{N^2} (N^2 + N) = 8 + \frac{8}{N}$$

The second term $8/N$ tends to zero as N approaches ∞ , so

$$A = \lim_{N \rightarrow \infty} R_N = \lim_{N \rightarrow \infty} \left(8 + \frac{8}{N}\right) = 8$$

REMINDER

$$R_N = \Delta x \sum_{j=1}^N f(x_j)$$

$$L_N = \Delta x \sum_{j=0}^{N-1} f(x_j)$$

$$\Delta x = \frac{b-a}{N}$$

$$x_j = a + j\Delta x$$

c. The left-endpoint approximation is similar, but the sum begins at $j = 0$ and ends at $j = N - 1$:

$$L_N = \frac{16}{N^2} \sum_{j=0}^{N-1} j = \frac{16}{N^2} \sum_{j=1}^{N-1} j = \frac{16}{N^2} \left(\frac{(N-1)N}{2} \right) = 8 - \frac{8}{N}$$

Note in the second step that we replaced the sum beginning at $j = 0$ with a sum beginning at $j = 1$. This is valid because the term for $j = 0$ is zero and may be dropped. Again, we find that $A = \lim_{N \rightarrow \infty} L_N = \lim_{N \rightarrow \infty} (8 - 8/N) = 8$.

5.1 SUMMARY

- Approximations to the area under the graph of f over the interval

$$[a, b] \left(\Delta x = \frac{b-a}{N}, x_j = a + j\Delta x \right):$$

$$R_N = \Delta x \sum_{j=1}^N f(x_j) = \Delta x (f(x_1) + f(x_2) + \cdots + f(x_N))$$

$$L_N = \Delta x \sum_{j=0}^{N-1} f(x_j) = \Delta x (f(x_0) + f(x_1) + \cdots + f(x_{N-1}))$$

$$\begin{aligned} M_N &= \Delta x \sum_{j=0}^{N-1} f\left(\frac{x_j + x_{j+1}}{2}\right) \\ &= \Delta x \left(f\left(\frac{x_0 + x_1}{2}\right) + \cdots + f\left(\frac{x_{N-1} + x_N}{2}\right) \right) \end{aligned}$$

Power Sums

$$\sum_{j=1}^N j = \frac{N(N+1)}{2} = \frac{N^2}{2} + \frac{N}{2}$$

$$\sum_{j=1}^N j^2 = \frac{N(N+1)(2N+1)}{6} = \frac{N^3}{3} + \frac{N^2}{2} + \frac{N}{6}$$

$$\sum_{j=1}^N j^3 = \frac{N^2(N+1)^2}{4} = \frac{N^4}{4} + \frac{N^3}{2} + \frac{N^2}{4}$$